

1 **Association Between Internet Use and Unmet Need for Family Planning among Ever-**
2 **Married Women in Bangladesh: Evidence from BDHS 2022**

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29 **Abstract**

30 **Objective**

31 To examine the association between internet use and unmet need for family planning among ever-
32 married women in Bangladesh and to assess disparities by residence, administrative division, and
33 key socio-demographic characteristics.

34 **Methods**

35 This study has used cross-sectional nationally representative Bangladesh Demographic and Health
36 Survey (BDHS) 2022 data, including 4,370 ever-married women aged 15-49 years covering urban
37 and rural areas of Bangladesh. Stepwise survey-weighted multivariable logistic regression models
38 were estimated to evaluate the association between internet use and unmet need for family
39 planning. Additionally, stratified analyses were performed by place of residence, administrative
40 division, maternal age, age at first birth, maternal education, and media exposure. Model
41 discrimination was assessed using the area under the receiver operating characteristic curve
42 (AUC).

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43 **Results**

44 Overall, 41% of women showed unmet need. Internet use was significantly associated with higher
45 odds of unmet need (aOR=1.83, 95% CI:1.52–2.20). Significant associations were observed in the
46 Barishal, Rajshahi, and Sylhet divisions and among women with early age at first birth and lower
47 education. The model demonstrated acceptable discrimination (AUC=0.78). Spatial findings
48 reveal particular attention is required in Chittagong to improve equitable access to contraceptive
49 services.

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50 **Conclusions**

51 Internet use was associated with a higher unmet need for family planning among ever-married
52 women in Bangladesh, with substantial regional and socio-demographic heterogeneity. These
53 findings suggest that digital access alone may not reduce unmet need without concurrent
54 improvements in service availability and responsiveness. Targeted family planning interventions
55 should be prioritized in high-need eastern divisions, particularly Chittagong, to reduce regional
56 inequalities in contraceptive access.

57 **Keywords:** Reproductive health, Digital health, Health services accessibility, Bangladesh

58

59

60 1.Introduction

61 Family planning services are not just the foundation for women's reproductive health, but also the
62 foundation for women's empowerment, social justice, and sustainable development [1]. Family
63 planning services allow women and their partners to make informed choices about the number and
64 spacing of their children, and these choices have significant implications for women's health,
65 women's empowerment, and sustainable development [2]. Despite decades of global and national
66 investment in improving access to family planning, millions of women worldwide need for family
67 planning, defined as the gap between what women desire and what they actually do in terms of
68 contraceptive use [3]. Women with unmet need are at greater risk of unintended pregnancy, poor
69 maternal health outcomes, and negative social and economic outcomes[4].

70 Globally, unmet need remains widespread. Approximately 200 million women in low- and middle-
71 income countries wish to evade pregnancy but do not use contraception [5]. Sub-Saharan Africa
72 displays the highest prevalence, while South and Southeast Asia have lower percentages but a large
73 absolute number of affected women [6]. Bangladesh has made notable improvement in
74 contraceptive coverage over the past decades; modern contraceptive use among married women
75 improved from under 10% in the 1970s to over 60% today [7]. Yet, analysis of Bangladesh
76 Demographic and Health Survey (BDHS) 2022 indicates that 41.8% of married women of
77 reproductive age still have an unmet need, prominence obstinate gaps in access, autonomy, and
78 evidence [8].

79 The recent years have witnessed the emergence of a digital revolution in Bangladesh, which offers
80 new avenues for filling the gaps. Internet access, for instance, was very low in the country; in 2011,
81 only 7.5% of women in urban areas and 0.5% of women in rural areas used the internet. In 2014,
82 the percentage of women in urban areas had roughly doubled, reaching 13%, while the percentage
83 of women in rural areas remained very low, at 1.8%. In the period between 2014 and 2018, the
84 percentage of women in Bangladesh who used the internet had risen dramatically, reaching 28%
85 in urban areas and 6% in rural areas. In 2022, the percentage of women in rural areas who used

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Commented [A8]: 2026? The reference from Kundu, was published in 2022. Why are you mentioning 2022 as today?

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86 the internet had risen sharply to 16.6%, while the percentage of women in urban areas had
87 remained stable at 27.3%, thus narrowing the rural-urban divide [9, 10]. The digital revolution,
88 therefore, offers new opportunities for women in Bangladesh. The internet, unlike traditional forms
89 of mass media, offers interactive facilities and information, which are likely to impact health and
90 reproductive behaviors [11].

91 The progress of internet access is mainly appropriate for family planning. Information blocks,
92 misunderstandings about contraception, and inadequate exposure to health facilities subsidize to
93 high unmet need [12]. Internet use can offer women with opportune, correct information on
94 contraception, peer sustenance, and associated to health services, potentially plummeting unmet
95 need and empowering women to make informed decisions [13–15]. However, the association
96 between internet use and family planning outcomes in Bangladesh remains limited explored [16].
97 Existing investigations mostly focus on socio-demographic determinants of unmet need age,
98 parity, education, residence, and media exposure while overlooking digital assignation [17].
99 Moreover, the consequence of internet use may fluctuate across subgroups, such as maternal age,
100 age at first birth, maternal education, and urban-rural residence, importance a critical knowledge
101 gap [18].

102 Addressing unmet need aligns with Sustainable Development Goals (SDG), particularly SDG 3
103 (ensuring healthy lives) and SDG 5 (achieving gender equality). Finding how digital knowledges,
104 such as internet use, effect generative health performances can notify interferences that are more
105 reasonable, embattled, and active [14]. This is particularly significant for women in rural or
106 downgraded societies who archeologically have challenged inadequate contact to health evidence
107 and facilities.

108 Therefore, the main goal of this study is to:

- 109 1. Assess the national association between internet use and unmet need for family planing
110 from BDHS 2022 for reproductive aged women aged (15-49) years;
- 111 2. Examine inequalities by urban-rural residence and administrative division; and
- 112 3. Investigate stratified analysis by maternal age, age at first birth, maternal education, and
113 media access.

114 By addressing these purposes, this study provides policy-relevant evidence on how digital
115 assignation can subsidize to diminish unmet need, advancing reproductive autonomy, and
116 enhancing equitable access to family planning evidence and services across Bangladesh.

117 **2.Methods**

118 **2.1. Study Design and Data Source**

119 This investigation utilized a cross-sectional study design and secondary data from the nationally
120 representative Bangladesh Demographic and Health Survey (BDHS) 2022 executed by the
121 National Institute of Population Research and Training (NIPORT), Ministry of Health and Family
122 Welfare, Government of Bangladesh, with methodological support from ICF International through
123 the USAID-funded DHS Program. This household survey provides an extensive range of signs on
124 population, health, and nutrition indicators, which are important in the procedures of tracking and
125 estimation of health plans and strategies in Bangladesh. The BDHS 2022 employed a two-stage
126 stratified cluster sampling design to ensure national representativeness. In the first stage, 675
127 enumeration areas (EAs) as key sampling units were selected with probability relational to EA size
128 from a sampling frame following from the 2011 Bangladesh Population and Housing Census
129 efficient through 2017-2018 cartographical procedures. The sample involved 225 urban EAs and
130 450 rural EAs, importance the country's demographic distribution. In the second stage, a
131 methodical sample of around 30 households were extract from each selected EA using an equal
132 probability systematic selection process. This sampling method shaped a total sample of 20,250
133 residential households across all eight administrative divisions of Bangladesh. Data collection was
134 implemented between October 2022 and February 2023 by using Computer-Assisted Personal
135 Interviewing (CAPI), which simplified development data excellence through real-time
136 commendation, skipping, and reduction of data entry errors. The data collection tool caused in
137 extremely high response rates, with 98.6% for the household questionnaire and 97.5% for the
138 individual women's questionnaire, screening a low level of non-response bias and a high level of
139 data excellence. The response occurrences far better international ideals for population surveys,
140 confirming data reliability and generalizability. The BDHS 2022 collected data from 20,065 ever-
141 married women aged 15–49 years on numerous zones including fecundity preferences,
142 contraceptive knowledge and use, maternal and child health services, nutritional status, domestic

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violence, women's empowerment, and household characteristics. Detailed are address in BDHS report 2022 [8].

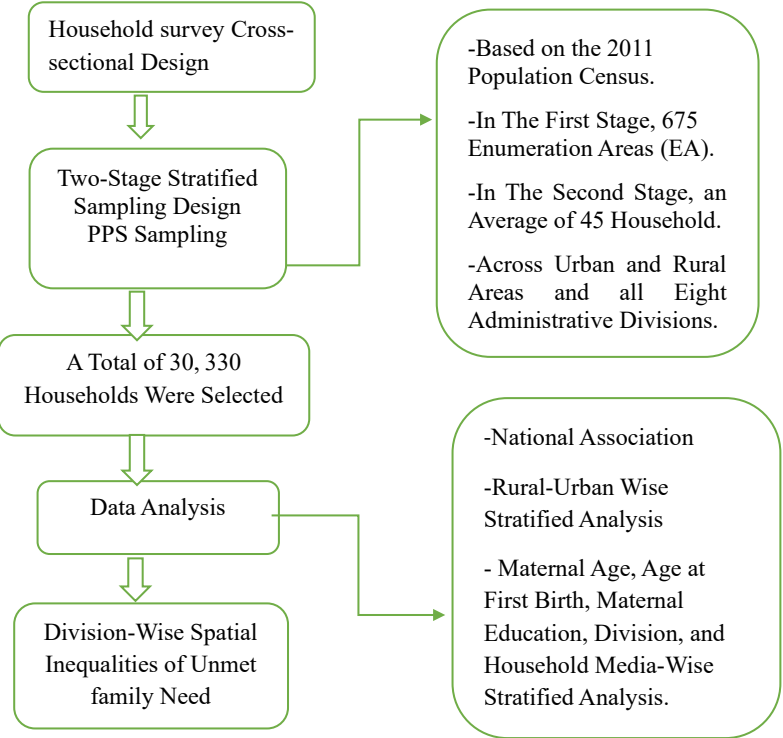


Figure 1. Study design

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2.2. Study Population and Eligibility Criteria

The target population of the study included pregnant women at the time of the survey, ranging in age from 15-49 years, who were either usual residents of the selected households or visitors present

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the night before the survey. The target population of pregnant women was selected because the unmet family planning needs of pregnant women are one of the important, yet often neglected, areas of reproductive health. While the assessment of the unmet family planning needs of women who are not pregnant is based on the use of contraceptives and fertility desires, the assessment of the unmet family planning needs of pregnant women is based on whether the pregnancy was intended, mistimed, or unwanted. The initial sample after applying the pregnancy criterion consisted of 4,370 women [Figure 1]. Subsequently, we excluded women with missing, ambiguous, or non-applicable responses on the outcome variable. This lucid reporting follows to STROBE (Strengthening the Reporting of Observational Studies in Epidemiology) strategies for cross-sectional studies and allows readers to assess the representativeness and generalizability of results [19].

2.3. Outcome Variable: Unmet Need for Family Planning

The key outcome variable was considered unmet need for family planning among currently pregnant women. This variable was extracted from the revised DHS unmet need variable, which categorizes women based on their pregnancy purpose status. Currently pregnant women were categorized as having unmet need if their current pregnancy was reported as mistimed or unwanted. The outcome was treated as a binary variable, coded as 1 for unmet need (mistimed or unwanted pregnancy) and 0 for no unmet need (intended pregnancy). Women with others excluded from these criteria. This definition follows standard DHS analytical strategies and is extensively utilized in reproductive health investigate [20].

2.4. Main Exposure Variable: Internet Use

The main exposure variable was women's internet use. Internet use was assessed based on self-reported use within the last 12 months previous to the survey. Women who defined using the internet during the past 12 months were classified as internet users, whereas those who defined never using the internet or not using it during the past 12 months were classified as non-users. This binary classification captures recent digital assignment and reflects potential exposure to online health statistics and digital communication stages.

2.5. Covariates

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See the revised diagram here.

Covariates were selected based on theoretical relevance, prior literature, and availability within the BDHS dataset. These variables represent socio-demographic, reproductive, household, empowerment, and health-related characteristics that may confound the relationship between internet use and unmet need. Maternal age was categorized into three groups: 15–24 years, 25–34 years, and 35–49 years, reflecting distinct reproductive life stages. Age at first birth was grouped into early (10–17 years), normative (18–24 years), and late (25 years or older) categories to capture differences in reproductive timing. Age at first cohabitation was categorized as less than 18 years, 18–20 years, and 21 years or older, reflecting early marriage dynamics. Educational attainment was categorized separately for women and their husbands. Women’s education was grouped as no education, primary education, and secondary or higher education. Husband’s education was similarly categorized. Parity was classified into four groups: no living children, one child, two children, and three or more children. Household wealth status was derived from the DHS wealth index and categorized into poor (lowest two quintiles), middle, and rich (highest two quintiles). Place of residence was classified as urban or rural. Administrative division was included to account for regional variation. Religion was categorized as Muslim and non-Muslim. Household size was grouped into fewer than five members and five or more members. Women’s employment status was classified as currently working or not working. Husband’s employment status was categorized as worked versus did not work. A composite women’s empowerment index was constructed using five decision-making domains: decisions regarding own health care, major household purchases, visits to relatives, control over spending money, and contraceptive decision-making. Women who participated either alone or jointly with their partner in at least three of these domains were classified as empowered, while those participating in two or fewer domains were classified as not empowered. This composite measure reflects multidimensional autonomy relevant to reproductive decision-making. A binary variable representing experience of intimate partner violence (IPV) was constructed based on women’s self-reported experience of physical violence from their partner. Women reporting at least one form of physical violence were categorized as having experienced IPV. Women with missing or “don’t know” responses were excluded from IPV analysis. A household media exposure variable was created to capture access to information sources. Households were classified as having media access if they owned at least one of the following: radio, television, newspaper access, or mobile phone. A household asset index was constructed based on ownership of major assets such as refrigerator, bicycle, motorcycle, or car. Housing

material quality was categorized as improved or unimproved based on floor, wall, and roof materials. Ownership of house and household size were also included as indicators of socioeconomic status [21–27].

2.5. Missing Data

The proportion of missing data was minimal for most variables. For selected categorical variables with small proportions of missing values, simple mode imputation was applied to retain sample size. Sensitivity analyses indicated that imputation did not materially alter the results. For two specific covariates husband's education and husband's employment status missing data rates were slightly higher but still modest: 0.82% for husband's education (36 cases) and 1.03% for husband's employment (45 cases). For these variables, we implemented simple mode imputation, replacing missing values with the most frequently observed category in the complete cases. For husband's education, the modal category was secondary or higher education (59.50% of complete cases); for husband's employment, the mode was currently working (95.88% of complete cases).

2.6. Survey Design and Weighting

All analyses accounted for the complex survey design of BDHS 2022. Sampling weights were applied to adjust for unequal probability of selection and non-response. Primary sampling units and stratification variables were incorporated into survey-adjusted analyses to obtain nationally representative estimates and correct standard errors. This study followed STROBE (Strengthening the Reporting of Observational Studies in Epidemiology) guidelines [28].

2.7. Model Building Stages

Step 1: Bivariate Analysis

First, the study employed Chi-square tests for assessing initial association between the covariates and the outcome variable. The categorical variables with a p-value less than 0.25 were considered for the final model for adjustment, i.e., the inclusion of the covariates in the final model was considered to avoid the exclusion of potentially important confounding variables.

Step 2: Forward Stepwise Model Selection

In the second step, all the potential confounding variables as covariates were added individually to the model. The inclusion of the covariates in the model was considered on the basis of statistical

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256 and conceptual considerations. The inclusion of the covariates in the model was considered on the
257 basis of:

- 258 ➤ Statistical Significance (p-values),
- 259 ➤ Change in the Odds Ratio (OR) for the main exposure variable,
- 260 ➤ Improvement in the model fit, i.e., Akaike Information Criterion (AIC), and Bayesian
261 Information Criterion (BIC).

262 Conceptually consistent confounding variables were retained in the model, even if they slightly
263 worsened the AIC/BIC, in order to avoid model misspecification. The current study also employed
264 the likelihood ratio tests (LRT) for comparing the logistic regression models, which compare to
265 nested logistic regression models, assessing the consequence of covariates to model performances.

Commented [A17]: How many models do we have? Why?

266 2.8. Statistical Analysis

267 Descriptive statistics were used to summarize sample characteristics. Weighted proportions and
268 95% confidence intervals were calculated for unmet need and key independent variables.

269 Bivariate associations between unmet need and independent variables were assessed using design-
270 adjusted chi-square tests. Variables with statistical significance at $p < 0.20$ or those considered
271 conceptually important were included in multivariable analysis. Survey-weighted multivariable
272 logistic regression models were fitted to examine the association between internet use and unmet
273 need for family planning. Adjusted odds ratios (AORs) and 95% confidence intervals were
274 reported. Model selection was guided by theoretical considerations and statistical criteria,
275 including Akaike Information Criterion (AIC), Bayesian Information Criterion (BIC), and
276 likelihood ratio tests. Lower AIC and BIC values indicated better model fit. In this analysis, among
277 14 models the m13 indicates the best adjusted model with lower AIC=4885.293, and BIC=
278 5057.621. Stratified analyses were conducted by place of residence and maternal age to explore
279 potential effect modification. Multicollinearity was assessed using variance inflation factors.
280 Model goodness-of-fit was evaluated using the Hosmer–Lemeshow test. All statistical analyses
281 were performed using Stata software. Statistical significance was set at $p < 0.05$.

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Commented [A20]: Can we interpret these values? Why do you need to mention them in the method section?

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282 2.9. Model Diagnostics and Assumption Checking

283 Multiple diagnostic strategies were conducted to evaluate best adjusted model competence, find
284 significant remarks, and confirm that assumptions essential for effective logistic regression
285 extrapolation were contented.

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286 Goodness-of-fit testing was implemented using the Hosmer-Lemeshow test, which assesses how
287 well the model's predicted probabilities match observed outcome frequencies across deciles of
288 predicted risk. The test splits observations into groups based on predicted probability deciles and
289 compares observed versus expected counts of outcomes in each group using a chi-square statistic.
290 Non-significant results ($p > 0.05$) indicate acceptable model fit, while significant results suggest
291 poor calibration. Additionally, model performance was evaluated using the ROC (Receiver
292 Operating Characteristic) curve, with the area under the curve (AUC) indicating goodness of fit

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293 Multicollinearity assessment was conducted by calculating variance inflation factors (VIF) for all
294 covariates in the final model. In practice, most covariates showed $VIF < 5$, indicating no
295 concerning multicollinearity. In this study, the VIF of best adjusted model was 2.42 only.

296 **2.10. Ethics Approval and Consent to Participate**

297 The BDHS 2022 received ethical approval from the Bangladesh Medical Research Council and
298 the ICF Institutional Review Board. The present study used publicly available, de-identified
299 secondary data. Therefore, no additional ethical approval was required. However, details at:
300 <https://dhsprogram.com/Methodology/Protecting-the-Privacy-of-DHS-Survey-Respondents.cfm>.

301 **2.11. Adjusted Confounders in Final Models**

302 These set of covariates were added in final models including maternal age, age at first birth,
303 maternal education status, husband education status, parity, place of residence, household media,
304 household assets, husband employment, household division, women's empowerment, household
305 religions, and contraception status.

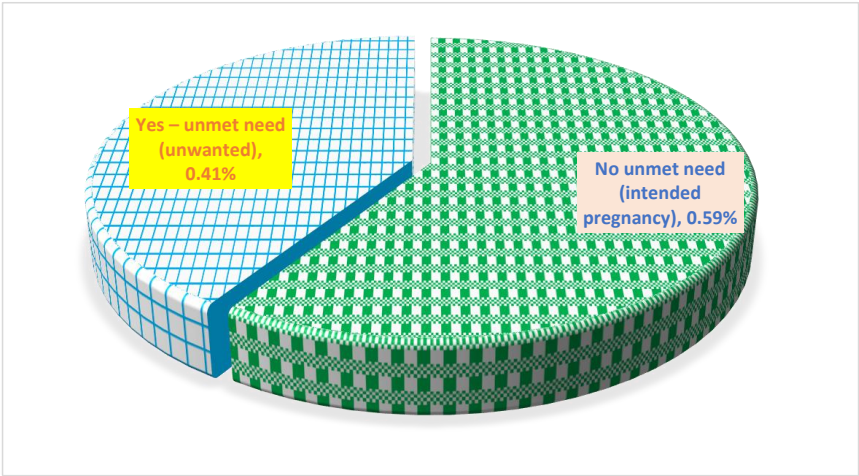
306 **3.Results**

307 **3.1. Background Characteristics**

308 Overall, 41% of women revealed unmet need for family planning [Figure 2].

309

[Insert Figure 2 Here]



310

311 **Figure 2: Prevalences of Unmet Need family Planning**

312 Unmet need was significantly higher among older women, increasing from 13.1% in those aged
313 15–24 to 17.1% in 25–34 and 11.0% in 35–49 years ($p<0.001$), and among women who cohabited
314 early (26.5%) compared with later cohabitation (4.6%, $p<0.001$). Women who have higher parity
315 (≥ 3 children), showed higher (11.7%), unmet need compared to women with no children (3.96%,
316 $p<0.001$). Additionally, women with no education showed higher unmet need (3.4%) compared to
317 above secondary education (28.4%, $p<0.001$). Early age at first birth was associated with higher
318 unmet need (13.9% vs 6.3% in late first births, $p<0.001$). Women not participate in joint
319 contraceptive decisions (10.2%) and those lacking maternal empowerment (10.8%) experienced
320 higher unmet need ($p<0.001$ and $p=0.001$, respectively). Husband’s lower education ($p<0.001$) and
321 non-working status ($p=0.007$), female-headed households (14.99% vs 26.27% in male-headed,
322 $p<0.001$), and households with unimproved materials (4.87%, $p=0.001$) or no assets (14.71%,
323 $p=0.040$) were also significantly associated. Media access (36.2% vs 5.1%, $p<0.001$) and internet
324 use ($p<0.001$) were associated to lower unmet need [Table 1].

325

[Insert Table 1 Here]

326

327

328 **Table 1. Distribution of unmet need for family planning by background characteristics**329 **(N=4,370)**

Unmet Need for Family Planning				
Characteristics	No n (%)	Yes n (%)	Total n (%)	χ^2 Test, (p-value)
Demographic Characteristics				
Women Age (years)				297.4116 (<0.001)
15- 24	1,317(30.14)	573(13.11)	1,890(43.25)	
25-34	1,019 (23.32)	749 (17.14)	1,768(40.46)	
35-49	231(5.29)	481(11.01)	712(16.29)	
Age at Cohabitations				47.0128 (<0.001)
10-17 (Early)	1,411(32.29)	1,157(26.48)	2,568(58.76)	
18-24(Mild)	706(16.16)	444(10.16)	1,150(26.32)	
≥25 (Late)	450(10.30)	202(4.62)	652(14.92)	
Parity				854.1223(<0.001)
No Children	990(22.65)	173(3.96)	1,163(26.61)	
One Children	955(21.85)	479(10.96)	1,434(32.81)	
Two Children	478(10.94)	639(14.62)	1,117(25.56)	
≥3 Children	144 (3.30)	512(11.72)	656(15.01)	
Household Division				31.6240 (<0.001)
Barishal	246(5.63)	187(4.28)	433(9.91)	
Chittagong	456(10.43)	408(9.34)	864(19.77)	
Dhaka	403(9.22)	288(6.59)	691(15.81)	
Khulna	316(7.23)	199(4.55)	515(11.78)	
Mymensingh	279(6.38)	162(3.71)	441(10.09)	
Rajshahi	284(6.50)	150(3.43)	434(9.93)	
Rangpur	264(6.04)	156(3.57)	420(9.61)	
Sylhet	319(7.30)	253(5.79)	572(13.09)	
Place of Residence				10.0405 (0.002)
Urban	852(19.50)	517(11.83)	1,369(31.33)	
Rural	1,715(39.24)	1,286(29.43)	3,001(68.67)	
Household Religion				0.65 (0.723)
Non-Muslim	215(4.92)	112(2.56)	327(7.48)	
Muslim	2,352(53.82)	1,691 (38.70)	4,043(92.52)	
Maternal Characteristics				
Maternal Education				71.4741(<0.001)
Not education	102(2.33)	150(3.43)	252(5.77)	
Primary Complete	429(9.82)	413(9.45)	842(19.27)	
Above Secondary	2,036(46.59)	1,240(28.38)	3,276(74.97)	
Maternal Employment				0.0267 (0.870)
Not Working	2,025(46.34)	1,426(32.63)	3,451(78.97)	
Currently working	542(12.40)	377(8.63)	919(21.03)	
Age at first Birth				413.5423(<0.001)

(10-17) Early	478 (10.94)	609(13.94)	1,087(24.87)	
(18-24) Normal	964 (22.06)	920(21.05)	1,884(43.11)	
(≥25) Late	1,125(25.74)	274(6.27)	1,399(32.01)	
Contraception Decision				
Not joint	459(10.50)	444(10.16)	903(20.66)	29.3903 (<0.001)
Joint	2,108(48.24)	1,359(31.10)	3,467(79.34)	
Maternal Empowerment				
No	784(17.94)	470(10.76)	1,254(28.70)	10.3601 (0.001)
Yes	1,783(40.80)	1,333(30.50)	3,116(71.30)	
Husband Characteristics				
Husband Education				27.9075 (<0.001)
No Education	297(6.80)	282(6.45)	579(13.25)	
Primary Complete	642(14.69)	513(11.74)	1,155(26.43)	
Above Secondary	1,628(37.25)	1,008(23.07)	2,636(60.32)	
Husband Employment				7.3836(0.007)
Not Working	64(1.46)	71(1.62)	135(3.09)	
Working	2,503(57.28)	1,732(39.63)	4,235(96.91)	
Household Head Sex				279.7224 (<0.001)
Male	2,194(50.21)	1,148(26.27)	3,342 (76.48)	
Female	373(8.54)	655(14.99)	1,028(23.52)	
Household & Socioeconomic Factors				
Household Wealth Status				1.0750(0.584)
Poor	880(20.14)	635(14.53)	1,515(34.67)	
Middle	518(11.85)	342(7.83)	860(19.68)	
Rich	1,169(26.75)	826(18.90)	1,995(45.65)	
Household Size				1.0537(0.305)
Less than 5	1,195(27.35)	1,372(21.40)	2,006(45.90)	
≥ 5	811(18.56)	992(22.70)	2,364(54.10)	
Household Ownership				2.2373(0.135)
Does not Own	2,458(56.25)	1,209(39.11)	4,167(95.35)	
Owens	109(2.49)	94(2.15)	203(4.65)	
Household Assets				4.2316 (0.040)
No	994(22.75)	643(14.71)	1,637(37.46)	
Yes	1,573(36.00)	1,160(26.54)	2,733(62.54)	
Household Materials				11.2949 (0.001)
Unimproved	395(9.04)	213(4.87)	608(13.91)	
Improved	2,172(49.70)	1,590(36.38)	3,762(86.09)	
Media & Information Access				
Household Media Access				14.7085(<0.001)
No Media	425 (9.73)	223(5.10)	648(14.83)	
Yes Media	2,142(49.02)	1,580(36.16)	3,722(85.17)	
Internet Use Status				22.8146 (<0.001)
No	7714 (98.61)	109 (1.39)	2,345(53.660)	
Yes	6030 (98.40)	98 (1.60)	2,025(46.34)	

331 **3.2. Association between Internet Use and Unmet Need for Family Planning**

332 At the national level, women who reported using the internet in the past 12 months had
333 significantly higher odds of unmet need for family planning compared with non-users (adjusted
334 odds ratio [aOR] 1.83, 95% CI 1.52–2.20; p<0.001). Crude estimates showed a similar pattern
335 (cOR 1.34, 95% CI 1.18–2.14; p=0.003). Stratified analyses revealed consistent associations
336 across rural (aOR 1.86, 95% CI 1.50–2.31; p<0.001) and urban (aOR 1.85, 95% CI 1.28–2.70;
337 p=0.001) settings. All models were adjusted for potential confounders, including maternal age, age
338 at first birth, parity, husband’s education and occupation, household assets, media access, women’s
339 empowerment, place of residence, religion, and contraception status. These findings indicate that
340 internet use is independently associated with higher unmet need for family planning, with similar
341 effects in rural and urban populations [Table 2].

342 [Insert Table 2 Here]

343 **Table 2: Associations Between Unmet Need for Family Planning and Internet Use Status (N=**
344 **4,370, N1 Rural= 3,001, N2 Urban = 1,369)**

345

Characteristics	Outcome Variable: Unmet Need for Family Planning			
Main Exposure: Internet Use Status	cOR (95% CI) p	aOR (95% CI) p		
	-	National Level	Rural	Urban
Non-users of internet in the last 12 months (Ref)	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00
Internet use last 12 months	1.34(1.18-2.14) 0.003	1.83(1.52-2.20), <0.001	1.86 (1.50- 2.31), <0.001	1.85 (1.28- 2.70), 0.001

Commented [A24]: Is this for national/rural/urban???
Why do you have 1 value in the cOR?

346

347 *Note: cOR = Crude Odds Ratio; aOR= Adjusted Odds Ratios CI = confidence interval*

348 **Confounders: maternal age, age at first birth, husband education, parity, place of residence,**
349 **access of household media, household assets status, husband occupation, women’s**
350 **empowerment, household religion, contraception status**

351

352 3.3. Stratified Association between Internet Use and Unmet Need for Family Planning

353 **Table 3: Maternal Age, Age at First Birth, Division, Maternal Education, and Household**
354 **Media-wise Associations Between Internet Use and Unmet Need for Family**

Commented [A25]: Is this from the same analysis as table 2?

Variable	aOR (95% CI)
Age at First Birth	
Early (10–17)	2.70 (1.91–3.82)
Normal (18–24)	1.67 (1.29–2.17)
Late (≥25)	1.38 (0.95–1.99)
Age Group (years)	
15–24	1.42 (1.09–1.85)
25–34	2.41 (1.82–3.17)
35–49	2.30 (1.40–3.75)
Division	
Barishal	3.24 (1.99–5.28)
Chattogram	1.98 (1.27–3.08)
Dhaka	1.63 (1.08–2.46)
Khulna	1.47 (0.89–2.42)
Mymensingh	1.50 (0.80–2.79)
Rajshahi	3.30 (1.62–6.72)
Rangpur	0.86 (0.47–1.55)
Sylhet	2.98 (1.96–4.53)
Maternal Education	
No Education	5.34 (1.70–16.71)
Primary Education	3.08 (2.01–4.72)
Secondary and Higher	1.62 (1.32–2.00)
Household Media Exposure	
No Media	1.89 (0.97–3.67)
Has Media	1.85 (1.51–2.24)

355

Note: Odds ratios (ORs) compare internet users with non-users (reference group, OR=1.0). ORs >1 indicate higher odds of unmet need among users. 95% confidence intervals are shown; CIs excluding 1 denote statistically significant associations.

Women with early (10–17 years) and normal (18–24 years) age at first birth showed higher odds compared with those with late first birth (aOR=2.70, 95% CI: 1.91–3.82; OR=1.67, 95% CI: 1.29–2.17). Likewise, by age group, internet users aged 15–24, 25–34, and 35–49 years observed significantly higher odds (aOR=1.42–2.41) than non-users. Geographically, significant associations were observed in Barishal (aOR=3.24, 95% CI: 1.99–5.28), Chattogram (aOR=1.98, 95% CI: 1.27–3.08), Dhaka (aOR=1.63, 95% CI: 1.08–2.46), Rajshahi (OR=3.30, 95% CI: 1.62–6.72), and Sylhet (aOR=2.98, 95% CI: 1.96–4.53). Regarding maternal education, women with no education (aOR=5.34, 95% CI: 1.70–16.71), primary (aOR=3.08, 95% CI: 2.01–4.72), and secondary or higher education (aOR=1.62, 95% CI: 1.32–2.00) all showed significantly higher odds compared with no internet users. Finally, household media exposure was associated with higher odds among those with media access (aOR=1.85, 95% CI: 1.51–2.24) [Table 3].

[Insert Figure 3 Here]

The ROC analysis confirmed acceptable discriminatory performance of the model, with an area under the curve (AUC) of 0.7783. This shows that the model properly discriminates between outcome groups approximately 78% of the time, highlighting moderate-to-good predictive accuracy and performance considerably better than chance (AUC=0.5) [Figure 3].

[Insert Figure 3]

3.4. Spatial Inequality of Unmet Family Need

Unmet need is maximum in the Chittagong (~9%) and minimum in the western divisions such as Rajshahi, Rangpur, Khulna, and Barisal (~3–4%). This east–west gradient reveals persistent regional inequalities in contraceptive utilization, with programmatic attention needed in high-need eastern divisions [Figure 4].

[Insert Figure 4 Here]

4. Discussion

This study studied the association between internet use and unmet need for family planning among ever-married women in Bangladesh. Mostly, three key findings observed. First, internet use was significantly associated with higher odds of unmet need for family planning at the national level, even after adjustment for demographic, socioeconomic, empowerment, and household factors. Second, the association insisted across rural and urban settings, representing that the observed association is not constrained to a particular residential context. Third, substantial heterogeneity was acknowledged across administrative divisions and socio-demographic strata such as regional inequalities in unmet need for family planning, with Chittagong showing the highest levels and the western divisions exhibiting the lowest. The association was particularly strong in Barishal, Rajshahi, and Sylhet, among women with early age at first birth, and among those with lower educational attainment. The model demonstrated acceptable discriminatory performance (AUC=0.78), supporting moderate-to-good predictive accuracy. Finally, these findings show that digital assignation in Bangladesh is associated with higher unmet need in several contexts rather than uniformly reducing reproductive health gaps.

While digital access is often implicit to progress reproductive health outcomes, our findings suggest a more complex and context-dependent association[29] . Internet use may growth exposure to contraceptive knowledge, fertility planning ideas, and reproductive truths dissertation without ensuring parallel progresses in facility availability [30]. In such surroundings, women may change clearer partialities to postponement or limit childbearing but encounter persistent structural blocks including stock-outs, cost barriers, provider bias, limited method choice, or sociocultural struggle that avoid execution of those likings [31].

Thus, internet use may not growth unmet need, but rather reveal formerly articulated or latent demand for unmet family need [20, 32, 33] . In this outline, higher unmet need among internet users reproduces an information access gap rather than an injurious consequence of digital exposure. Digital access may enhance intellectual and informational empowerment, growing women's autonomy in fertility decision-making [34]. However, empowerment advances may not be consistently harmonized by changes in household negotiating power or partner sustenance [35, 36]. Women exposed to online satisfied may desire smaller relatives or longer arrangement, but decision-making remains controlled by partner disagreement or gender standards [37]. This pressure between enhanced consciousness and insistent structural limitations may apparent

statistically as complex unmet need among internet users [38]. The significant associations detected in Barishal, Rajshahi, and Sylhet advise geographic inequalities in digital exposure explains into service. These disparities suggest that access to and utilization of contraceptive services remain uneven across Bangladesh, underscoring the need for targeted interventions in high-need regions [39]. These divisions may experience lower health system awareness, lower contraceptive service exposure, or inequalities in excellence of care [40]. Digital inequality may also play a role: internet use in some areas may be more socially restricted, less health-focused, or more partial by non-verified evidence sources [41]. The observed clustering specifies that digital development interacts with local service settings rather than functioning individualistically. Significant associations found among women aged 25-49 years align with life course theory. Women in this group may have reached or approached their desired family size. Exposure to digital content about family planning may enhance fertility preferences, hence increasing unmet needs if service provision does not match their preferences [42]. Women in the 15-24-year may have a low level of expressed demand for family planning, hence lower associations in this group [43].

Previous research from LMICs countries has generally found positive relationships between media use and contraceptive use. However, the majority of the previous research examined traditional forms of mass media, rather than internet use [44–46]. Recent research on digital health has indicated that the internet contributes to knowledge on sexual and reproductive health, especially for youth and in urban populations[47] . However, more recent research has indicated that while digital media may contribute to knowledge, it does not necessarily lead to behavior change and that there are systemic barriers [48, 49]. Our study contributes to the digital health literature by showing that internet use in Bangladesh is related to unmet need, suggesting that while knowledge may be gained, it does not necessarily lead to behavior change in the form of contraceptive use.

4.1. Strengths and Limitations

This study has several strengths such as using nationally representative BDHS 2022 data improves external rationality such as large sample size consents strong stratified analyses. Likewise, adjustment for an inclusive set of potential confounders fortifies internal rationality. Additionally, forward stepwise conceptual, and statistical methods of selecting final best model enhances robustness of methodology. Finally, several stratified analyses provide realistic insights for making evidence-based policy. ROC offers objective evaluation of model insight.

4.2. Limitations

This study with several limitations consistent with STROBE commendations such as cross-sectional design limits causal inference and averts highlighting temporality. Self-reported internet use does not capture regularity, determination, stand type, or exposure to health-specific satisfied. Unmet need classification depends on DHS algorithm-based procedures and may be issue to reporting bias. Additionally, unavailability of potential confounders out of DHs survey data. Future longitudinal studies are needed to establish temporality between internet use and unmet need. Additionally, mixed-methods could clarify how women interpret online reproductive health information and why informational gains may not explain into contraceptive uptake.

4.3. Policy and Programmatic Implications

The findings propose that increasing digital access alone is inadequate to diminish unmet need. Policy approaches should focus on integrating authenticated family planning information on digital platforms. Strengthening the connection between online information and offline services. Increasing telehealth and digital referral services. Supporting regional differences in service quality and availability. Fostering digital literacy to address misinformation. Integrating male engagement strategies to address partner-level barriers. Regional interventions could be particularly important in divisions with larger digital unmet need associations.

Exploring interaction effects between internet use and empowerment, partner attitudes, and service quality would also deepen understanding.

4.4. Conclusions

In this nationally representative investigation, internet use was significantly associated with higher unmet need for family planning among ever-married women in Bangladesh, with considerable regional and socio-demographic heterogeneity. These findings propose that digital engagement alone does not assurance enhanced reproductive health outcomes. Bridging the gap between online information and accessible, high-quality contraceptive services is essential to translate digital expansion into meaningful reductions in unmet need and enhanced reproductive autonomy. Policymakers should prioritize targeted family planning programs in high-need eastern divisions, particularly Chittagong, to address regional disparities.

471 **4.5. List of Abbreviations**

Abbreviation Full Form	
AOR	Adjusted Odds Ratio
cOR	Crude Odds Ratio
OR	Odds Ratio
CI	Confidence Interval
ROC	Receiver Operating Characteristic
AUC	Area Under the Curve
BDHS	Bangladesh Demographic and Health Survey
DHS	Demographic and Health Survey
FP	Family Planning
UN	Unmet Need
LMICs	Low- and Middle-Income Countries
WHO	World Health Organization
SDGs	Sustainable Development Goals
BMI	Body Mass Index (if used)
STROBE	Strengthening the Reporting of Observational Studies in Epidemiology

472

473 **4.6. Declaration**

474 **4.7. Availability of data statement:**

475 This secondary dataset is available on request from DHS program website at:

476 (<https://www.dhsprogram.com/data>).

477 **4.8. Code Availability**

478 The code supporting the findings of this study is available at this repository :

479 <https://github.com/muhammadsalek/BDHS-Unmet-Need-Analysis/blob/main/README.md>

480 **4.9. Generative AI Assistance**

481 The study used generative AI tools like Grammarly, QuillBot, and ChatGPT (GPT-4) just to
482 improve the language, didn't use AI for any data work no generating, analyzing, or interpreting.

483 **4.10. Consent for publication**

484 Not applicable.

485 **4.11. Competing interest**

486 All of authors have no competing interests.

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492 **4.14. Authorship Contribution Statement**

493 **Md Jamal Uddin (Corresponding Author):** Investigation, Methodology, Resources, and Final
494 Manuscript Supervision.

495 **Md Salek Miah:** Conceptualization, Data Curation, Formal Analysis, Writing - Original Draft,
496 Resources, Project Administration.

497

498

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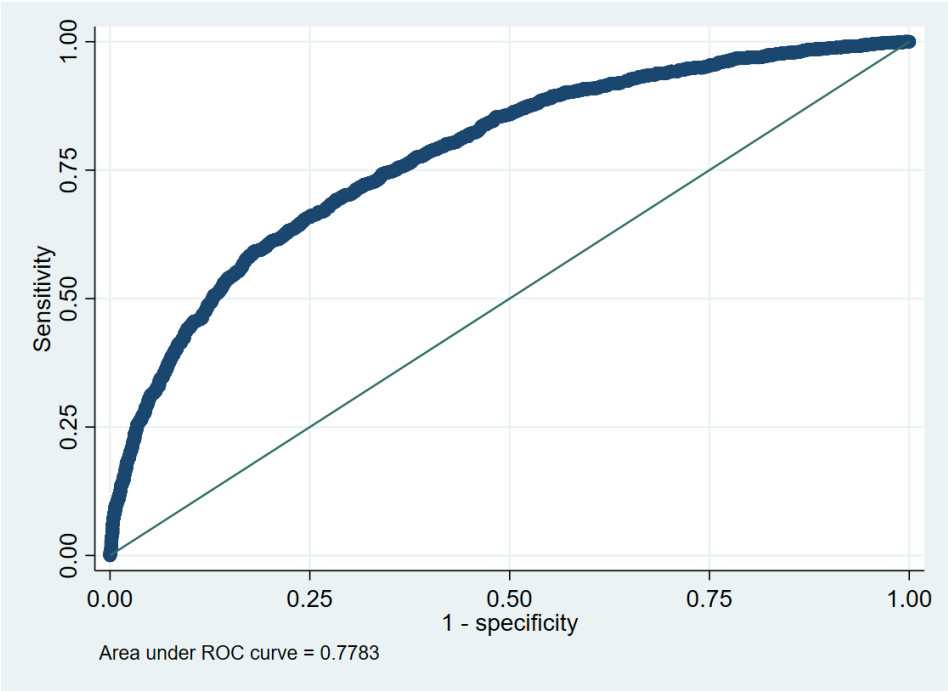
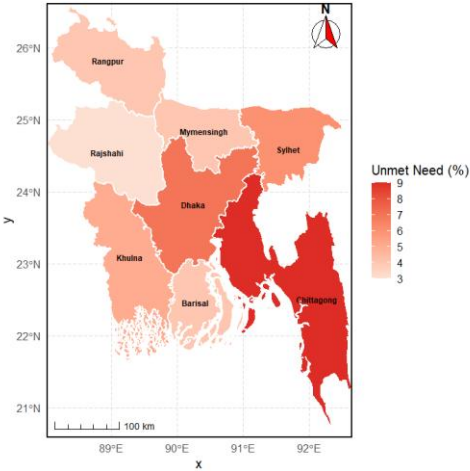


Figure 3: Receiver Operating Characteristic (ROC) Curve for the Prediction Model of Unmet Need for Family Planning in Bangladesh (BDHS 2022)

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677

678 **Figure 4: Spatial Inequalities of Unmet Family Need**